# Chapter 1

# Introduction

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This work consists of 43 chapters describing the negation system of one language following a typologically and functionally oriented questionnaire. The questionnaire is organized according to functional subdomains of negation and pays most attention to aspects of negation that have been found salient in typological research. The introduction first discusses the background and aims of the work. The questionnaire and the conventions adopted are then introduced. Finally, the selection of languages and their areal and genealogical distribution are addressed and the organization of the work is explained.

## 1 Background and aims

The goal of this work is to achieve typologically-informed, multifaceted and comprehensive descriptions of the negation systems of languages from different families and geographical areas. The publication is a follow-up from a workshop organized by the editors at the Syntax of the World's Languages 8 conference in Paris in 2018. The greater part of the contributions are based on presentations in that workshop. Negation is a topic that has been widely studied in various branches of linguistics and there is an extensive body of literature devoted to it. Nevertheless, detailed and accurate descriptions of the domain of negation exist for a small minority of the world's languages.

Large-scale typological studies of negation include Dahl (1979), Dryer (2013a,b,c) and Miestamo (2005) for standard negation, van der Auwera et al. (2013), Van Olmen (2024) for negative imperatives, Veselinova (2013, 2015) for the negation of existential and other stative predications, Haspelmath (2013), Van Alsenoy (2014) and van der Auwera & Van Alsenoy (2018) for the negation of indefinite pronouns, and Miestamo (2014) for case marking under negation (for an overview

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of the whole domain, see Miestamo 2007, 2017, Dahl 2010 and van der Auwera & Krasnoukhova 2020).[1] However, there are several aspects of negation that have not been systematically studied from a cross-linguistic perspective. This is partly due to the fact that not enough data from particular languages are available on these subdomains. There have been few systematic efforts to collect data from a wider variety of individual languages. This is a gap that needs to be filled both for the benefit of linguistic typology and for the detailed description of individual languages. One systematic attempt saw the light in Kahrel & van den Berg (1994). In that volume, the negation systems of 16 languages from different parts of the world were described on the basis of a unified questionnaire that addressed the domain of negation with a set of questions derived from typological research done by the late 1980s. The volume has been very useful for typologists and for descriptive linguists as a source of data and as inspiration for systematic and unified collection of data from different languages with very diverse expressions of negation. However, no similar projects have been conducted since the publication of the volume 30 years ago.

A similar effort was undertaken for one specific family, namely Uralic, by Miestamo et al. (2015). For that volume, a functionally oriented questionnaire drawing from the current state-of-the-art knowledge of the typology of negation was developed. The 17 Uralic languages included in the volume were described in a similar way following one and the same template, thereby greatly improving the descriptive situation of negation in Uralic languages. However, this approach was yet to be applied to other languages and language families.

Organizing the Paris workshop and editing this work was our response to this demand. Our primary goal was to produce comprehensive and detailed descriptions of negation systems in a diverse body of languages from different parts of the world. The chapters in this work are based on a revised version of the questionnaire used in Miestamo et al. (2015). "Questionnaire for describing the negation system of a language" is published as Chapter 2 in all three volumes. It is discussed in more detail in §2 of this introduction.

The authors were recruited initially following their participation in the Paris workshop and, after that, by approaching other specialists in specific areas and families to ensure the genealogical and areal balance of the project, see §3 for further discussion. Each language-specific description of negation constitutes one chapter in the work. There are 43 chapters; some of them are co-authored by several people, so all in all, there are 56 participating authors. Each chapter follows the guidelines detailed in the questionnaire. Our goal has been to cover

[1] The references mentioned here are not meant to be an exhaustive list of large-scale typological studies on negation in the literature.

the subdomains of negation that we deem as typologically salient. Additionally, authors have been encouraged to focus specifically on issues that, in their respective languages, are most distinctive or especially interesting for cross-linguistic studies. These domains may, for instance, pertain to properties that are cross-linguistically rare or may be problematic to describe.

By describing languages on the basis of the questionnaire, the chapters in this work have produced comparable datasets of the negation systems of a wide variety of languages from different families and areas. The contributions are also good examples of the fruitful cooperation between typologists and descriptive linguists in the context of diversity linguistics. Typological knowledge is crucial for language description as it helps descriptive linguists to see their data in a broader perspective, to ask new questions, and to come up with new analyses. Typologists are dependent on work done by descriptive linguists for their data collection. A typologically and functionally oriented questionnaire thus helps descriptive linguists to find relevant questions to focus on and to structure the description of negation in their respective languages. In turn, these descriptions feed back to typology as more high-quality data become comparable across languages.

The work is divided into three volumes according to geography, following the macro-areal divisions in the Glottolog (Hammarström et al. 2024). Each of the three volumes contains the same two introductory chapters (the present chapter and the questionnaire chapter). The first volume includes languages from Africa, the second volume covers languages from Eurasia, and the third volume brings together languages from Papunesia, Australia, North America and South America. As will be seen in §3, the grouping of macro-areas into three volumes relates to the number of authors we were able to recruit for each area.

## 2 Questionnaire and conventions

In this section, we address first the logic and the structure of the questionnaire in §2.1, then we discuss some issues that have come up during the editing process regarding the use of the questionnaire in §2.2, and finally we explain the glossing conventions adopted in the work in §2.3.

### 2.1 Logic and structure of the questionnaire

The idea of a typologically and functionally based questionnaire for the description of negation was originally presented in the Uralic Typology Database Conference in Vienna in 2008 and the first draft was produced for the Symposium

on Negation in Uralic languages at the 2010 Congressus Internationalis Fenno-Ugristarum in Piliscsaba (Miestamo 2010). The questionnaire was published as an appendix to the introduction of the volume on *Negation in Uralic languages* (Miestamo et al. 2015), in which negation in 17 Uralic languages was described based on the questionnaire. A revision appeared in the TulQuest questionnaire repository[2] in 2016 and was distributed to the participants before the Paris workshop. For the present work, a further revision (Miestamo 2025 [this volume]) was done with additional input from both editors, and this revised version is published as Chapter 2 in the present work. Note that some needs for development and revision have been identified by us in the process of editing and suggested to us by colleagues. However, as we have to show the questionnaire to our readers as it was sent to the authors and as it was used by them in preparing their contributions, it has been reproduced in this work in its 2019 version. Only the formatting has been changed to conform to the style sheet of this work. Some of the ideas for future development are discussed in §2.2.

The questionnaire has a functional-typological basis. It is organized according to different subdomains of negation, paying special attention to such domains that are typologically salient, i.e. likely to show variation across languages and to differ from basic declarative-clause negation (standard negation). The questionnaire is divided into three main sections: clausal negation, non-clausal negation and other aspects of negation. The first two parts target negative expressions (morphemes, constructions), whereas the third one is about phenomena that are related to negation and happen in connection with negation, but are not themselves expressions of negation; we admit that it is not always easy to draw the line and there will be some variation as to how things are distributed between the sections in different chapters (we will come back to this in §2.2).

The section on clausal negation is divided into 1. standard negation, i.e. the basic way(s) the language has for negating declarative main clauses with a verbal predicate, 2. negation in non-declaratives (mainly imperatives and interrogatives), 3. negation in stative predications (identity, class inclusion, property, existence, location, possession), 4. negation in non-main clauses, and 5. negative lexicalizations (lexically idiosyncratic negation). There is a final subsection, where clausal negation constructions that do not fit under any of the preceding subheadings can be discussed.

The section on non-clausal negation is divided into 1. negative replies, 2. negative indefinites and quantifiers, and 3. negative case marking and derivation. Again, there is a final subsection for non-clausal negation constructions not fitting in any of the preceding subsections.

[2] http://tulquest.huma-num.fr

Finally, the section on other aspects of negation has subsections on 1. the scope of negation, 2. negative polarity, 3. marking of NPs under the scope of negation, 4. reinforcing negation, and 5. negation, coordination and complex clauses. A final subsection addresses miscellaneous phenomena that may also be taken into account in the description, such as negative transport, metalinguistic negation, diachronic aspects of negation, etc.

In this introduction, we do not explain the contents of the questionnaire in more detail, as that would create overlap with what is explained in the questionnaire. At this point, the reader is thus referred to the questionnaire itself (Chapter 2 in this work). Note further that, for similar reasons, i.e. to avoid overlap, the questionnaire does not offer a detailed overview of the typology of the different subdomains of negation. There are many published overviews of the typology of negation, e.g Dahl (2010), van der Auwera & Krasnoukhova (2020) and Miestamo (2007, 2017), that do this and also cite further relevant literature. We advise to consult them parallel to the questionnaire. Especially the two last-mentioned ones, which have a similar structure and focus as the questionnaire, provide a typological introduction to the subdomains and aspects of negation mentioned in the questionnaire.

Some further notes on the structure of the chapters are in order. Every chapter starts with an introductory section (Section §1) that situates the language in its genealogical and areal context, describes its sociolinguistic status and provides a brief typological characterization of the language to serve as a background for the description of negation. It also informs the reader about the methods and material that the description is based on. The three main parts of the questionnaire constitute Sections §2—§4 in the chapters, and each chapter has the same second-level subheadings and numbering under these sections. Exceptions to this are the final subsections in each section (§2.6, §3.4 and §4.6, respectively), which need to be there only in case there are further negative constructions or negation-related phenomena to report that could not be discussed in the preceding sections. Third-level subheadings are generally not present in the questionnaire and they are thus not unified across the chapters; they can be freely added by authors if need be. However, the questionnaire does have third-level subheadings under subsection §4.6, but these are mere suggestions and need not be present if the authors do not have anything to report under them. Thus even in this case, the authors are bound by the second-level subheadings only. Each chapter is closed by a summary, Section 5, which contains a table that puts together the main negative expressions in the language. We have asked the authors to organize the table from form to function, so that it does not merely summarize the functionally-oriented questionnaire but rather lets a language-specific perspective take precedence.

The reader will notice that there is quite a lot of variation in the length of the chapters, so the following explanation is in order. We had originally aimed at chapters of 20—25 pages. At some point we received information from the publisher that there are no length restrictions. At that stage, we did not actively encourage authors to expand their chapters, but for authors whose chapters had become longer for different reasons, we no longer imposed strict length restrictions, hence the varying length of the chapters.

## 2.2 Observations on the use of the questionnaire

In this section, we present some issues that surfaced during the process of editing this work. We are not going through the questionnaire and its application section by section, but we focus on aspects that may have been interpreted in different ways by different authors, on questions/domains of the questionnaire for which data have been difficult to obtain or elicit, and on possible overlaps between different sections and how to solve them. Therefore the reader should not expect a discussion of the most central aspects of negation that the questionnaire targets, but a less systematic collection of issues that require some clarification.

One central aspect of negation addressed in the questionnaire does however require a comment. The questionnaire encourages authors to pay attention to asymmetry between affirmation and negation, i.e. structural differences that negatives show vis-à-vis affirmatives in addition to the presence of negative markers (see Miestamo 2005), in connection with all subdomains of negation. In typological literature, it is mainly standard negation that has been discussed in terms of symmetry and asymmetry, but it is possible to extend it to other subdomains as well (see e.g. Van Olmen 2024), as also suggested by the questionnaire. The chapters differ in how much weight they put on asymmetry. This is naturally also partly dependent on how much asymmetry a given language shows, i.e. how much the structure of negatives differs from the structure of affirmatives. Some chapters address (a)symmetry in many subsections whereas others only mention it briefly in connection with standard negation. As editors, we have encouraged the authors to pay close attention to how negatives differ from affirmatives in the various subdomains of negation, and pointed out that a given structure in a given language could be characterized in terms of asymmetry and the subtypes proposed by Miestamo (2005), but we have not insisted on using this typological classification as such in describing negation in the language. This work is about describing the negation systems of languages in a typological perspective, and therefore, we have encouraged authors to pay attention to questions arising

from typological knowledge. However, the main point is to describe the structures of each individual language in its own terms rather than characterizing them in terms of typological classifications. Thus, regarding asymmetry, it is important to explicate how negatives differ from affirmatives in their structure, but it is secondary to the descriptive goals of the work to label these differences as one or another subtype of asymmetric negation proposed in typological work. A similar principle has been applied to other typological classifications in specific subdomains of negation.

Some of the subsections of the questionnaire are closely related to each other, and it is not always clear where to discuss a particular phenomenon. Two very closely related sections are §2.4 on non-main clauses and §4.5 on coordination and complex clauses. Section §2.4 looks at how non-main clauses are negated, but there may be phenomena related to negative non-main clauses that are not expressions of negation, and these may be better discussed in §4.5. On the other hand, if there is a negative coordinator (such as *neither... nor*) that is itself a marker of negation, it should be discussed in Section §2 or §3 depending on whether it is considered a clausal or a non-clausal negator. There is no dedicated section for such negative coordinators in the questionnaire, and in §2 and §3 their right place would be §2.6 or §3.4 addressing other (non-)clausal negation constructions. In many chapters they have been discussed in §4.5 as that is the place where they are easiest to find. This is one point of development for future versions of the questionnaire.

Another pair of subsections that address issues which are related in many languages are §3.2 on negative indefinites and quantifiers and §4.2 on negative polarity. Furthermore, §4.2 is closely related to other subsections of Section §4 addressing the scope of negation and reinforcing negation. Indefinite pronouns that appear under negation are negative polarity items in many languages, i.e. *any(body/thing)* in English. These would be primarily addressed in the section on negative indefinites, but should be mentioned and cross-referenced under negative polarity as well. Similarly, elements that express the scope of negation or emphasis under negation are often the same elements and they may be negative polarity items, so they may end up being mentioned in several subsections. What is always important is that the subsections are cross-referenced, so that the reader who is following the questionnaire can easily find what they are looking for.

While it is often pointed out that data on negation are easy to find in grammars and likewise easy to elicit, some aspects of this questionnaire have proven challenging in this respect. For instance, it has not always been clear that predications of location and existential predications are different predication types.

A locative predication asserts the location of a specific referent. An existential predication introduces a new entity into the discourse. Not all languages have a special grammaticalized existential construction (see detailed discussion in Creissels 2014, 2019; Haspelmath 2025; Veselinova & Hamari 2022). In many languages, there is a special strategy for negating predications of existence, which is, in fact, better described as a separate functional domain, the domain of absence or negative existence. On the other hand, predication of location is often encoded by several strategies, either standard negation or the negative existential, depending on the intended meaning and perspective of the speaker. The negation of predication of identity and class inclusion is often encoded by a separate strategy, different from both standard negation and the negative existential; such strategies have typically been reported. Negation strategies in the latter predication types are not always systematically covered in grammatical descriptions, which is why special attention was paid to them here.

We now turn to domains that have an intermediate status as regards lexicon and grammar. Phasal polarity is a functional domain which is typically understood to cover a system of concepts such as 'already', 'no longer', 'still', 'not yet' (see van der Auwera 1998; van Baar 1997). These concepts have to do with the existence or the non-existence of a situation at specific points in time related to other points in time. Thus ALREADY is usually defined to encode that a (possibly expected) situation has come to exist; NO LONGER expresses that a situation has ceased to exist; STILL is used to indicate that a situation continues (despite possible expectations that it should have stopped), and NOT YET encodes that a situation has not come into existence (despite possible expectations that it would). In the context of this work, NOT YET expressions, also referred to as NONDUM when clearly grammaticalized, following Veselinova & Devos (2021), have been of special interest. Their discussion would be placed differently in the questionnaire, depending on their status in the language but also following editorial guidance. Thus, fully grammaticalized nondums may appear in the discussion of standard negation as they would appear as full-fledged clausal negators, which in some languages constitute a tense-aspect category specific to the domain of negation. However, they might be also mentioned in the section on negative lexicalizations (more on this below). It should be noted that both in the pertinent literature and in this work, there are much fewer, if any, data on the encoding of the concept NO LONGER and the status of the respective expressions in specific languages. This is a gap yet to be filled by future research.

Negative lexicalizations are introduced in the questionnaire as expressions that combine lexical meaning with negation, as in Kalamang *komahal* 'not know' or *eranun* 'cannot, not be possible'; they stand in an antonymy relationship with

their positive counterparts *gonggin* 'know' and *bisa* 'can' (Visser, this volume). The most prototypical cases to be discussed under negative lexicalizations are ones where a particular concept has an idiosyncratic negative counterpart that cannot combine with grammatical expressions of negation. However, the limits of this definition need to be clarified. We need to ask: 1. whether or not a negative lexicalization is the only option to negate a given positive concept; 2. whether a negative lexicalization may itself be negated by more general negation markers. Consider the English verbs *fail* and *forget* – do they count as negative lexicalizations when interpreted as 'not succeed' and 'not remember', respectively? Even if languages do not always have negative lexicalizations in the strict sense, examples that loosely meet the definition, similar to the English verbs just quoted, may also be discussed in the section on negative lexicalizations. The Kalamang verbs cited above are the only options for negating the corresponding positive expressions and they cannot themselves be negated by standard negation. On the other hand, in Aguaruna (Overall, this volume), there are expressions such as *dakitu-* 'refuse, not want'; *tuhintu-* 'be unable'; *kanina-* 'not fit' which can be negated by the standard negation expressions in this language. In this sense, and in a more stringent definition, they should be considered borderline cases of negative lexicalizations, just like the English verbs cited above.

Another issue relevant for the discussion of negative lexicalizations relates to our delimitation of lexical and grammatical meaning. This is relevant for expressions such as the negative existential or negative copulas, often glossed 'not.be', discussed in several different sections due to their numerous uses. Likewise, to come back to phasal polarity, there are expressions such as *jēn* 'not yet/nondum' in Kam (Lesage, this volume) which often have an intermediate status between lexical and grammatical markers. In addition, nondums differ from what we see as the most prototypical negative lexicalizations in that they are not idiosyncratic negative counterparts of positive concepts but can freely combine with verbs and are in that sense (similar to) grammatical markers. This brief discussion on negative lexicalizations demonstrates that this subdomain of negation, yet to be explored, is another venue for further development of the questionnaire.

Perhaps it bears pointing out again that the questionnaire used here is based on our current knowledge about important subdomains of negation. Like everything in science, it is open to improvement. The discussion in this section has shown that we have already identified some points in need of revision. We hope that this questionnaire can be developed further in the future.

## 2.3 Glossing conventions

In addition to unity in the structure of the chapters, we strive to achieve unity in other respects as well, including the conventions regarding the presentation of examples. In glossing the examples, we follow the Leipzig Glossing Rules (LGR).[3] This means strictly adhering to the LGR in the "morphosyntax of glossing", i.e. aligning the items on the example and gloss lines and using symbols such as the hyphen and the dot according to the rules. Additionally, it means that we base our "lexicon of glossing" on the list of grammatical category abbreviations recommended in the LGR. Obviously, in a work containing chapters on more than 40 languages, many more abbreviations are necessary than what is provided in the rather short LGR list. Each chapter has a list of abbreviations in the end, and the abbreviations are unified across chapters.

In choosing the abbreviations, we have been guided by a few important principles. One of these is brevity, and we try to use abbreviations that are not unnecessarily long, so that examples will take as little space as possible. However, due to the principle of transparency, longer abbreviations may sometimes be preferred. Transparency means that the letters used in the abbreviation actually reflect the term that is being abbreviated. Thus in order to abbreviate terms like declarative negator and imperative negator, we use the abbreviations DECL.NEG and IMP.NEG, rather than NEG1 and NEG2 even if the descriptive tradition of a specific language group might prefer the latter. This also conforms to the principle that the terms and abbreviations used should relate to the semantics/function of the categories they refer to. This means that numbers are used in glossing only when they refer to meanings like person and noun class, not merely to distinguish between categories without any reference to function (e.g. using numbers to differentiate between different negators NEG1 and NEG2 as above). This is in line with the functional-typological orientation of the work. The final principle to be mentioned here is unity, so we use the same abbreviation for the same term in different chapters and the same abbreviation will always refer to the same term across the chapters. This is a further reason to avoid abbreviations such as NEG1 and NEG2 as these could refer to declarative and imperative negation in one language and standard/verbal negation and negative existence in another. It should be emphasized that using a unified set of abbreviations is not in conflict with the theoretical position that categories are language-particular (see Lazard 1992; Dryer 1997; Haspelmath 2007, 2010). The use of a unified set only means that common principles are applied in abbreviating the terms that each author uses for the descriptive categories in their respective language.

[3] https://www.eva.mpg.de/lingua/resources/glossing-rules.php

## 3 Languages presented in this work

As the topic is very broad in nature and, at the same time, rendered very detailed by the questionnaire, the project attracted a lot of interest. At the start of this project we had as many as 58 interested contributors, 36 of whom also participated in the workshop at the Syntax of World's Languages conference in Paris. The workshop participants were invited to author a chapter for this work. In the course of this project, some authors dropped out and some came in after the workshop and the subsequent call soliciting participation in the project.

While strict sampling stratification is not possible in a collective enterprise like this, our ambition as editors has been to achieve a balanced representation of all linguistic macro-areas as given in the Glottolog: Africa, Eurasia, Papunesia, Australia, North and South America. We targeted languages which lack detailed descriptions of their negation systems. The inclusion of lesser studied and endangered languages was encouraged but the main criteria have been to highlight the genealogical and geographic diversity of human languages as well as to bring in high-quality contributions. Thus the reader will find descriptions of some well-studied languages, and likewise descriptions of languages whose documentation and study are just beginning, many of them severely endangered. We also tried to break the divide between the scholarship of spoken and signed languages by including a study of the Sign Language of the Netherlands.

A general breakdown of the distribution of phyla and languages according to macro-area is shown in Table 1. A detailed listing of the languages is shown in Tables 2 and 3, and their geographic distribution is displayed on the map in Figure 1. The order of languages in Tables 2 and 3 as well as in the whole work follows, to the extent possible, a direction from north to south for Africa, North America and South America; west to east for Eurasia and Papunesia.

Some comments on the presentation of the language list in Tables 2—3 are in order. The terms *top-level family, phylum* and *language stock* are used interchangeably in this section. The classification in the table follows the Glottolog. We are fully aware of the fact that the Glottolog may not always conform with the views of experts on specific families. The classification in the table may thus differ from what the authors say in their chapters. The choice to use the Glottolog here is solely motivated by the need for consistency within a single table, and we do not claim that the Glottolog would overrule the expert views of the authors. Those cases where the Glottolog deviates from the author's view have been indicated with an asterisk in Tables 2—3 (except in cases of mere orthographic variation). The 43 languages featured in the work represent 27 phyla. As discussed above, due to the interplay of different criteria – achieving adequate

Table 1: Quantitative overview of the genealogical coverage offered in this work

| Macro-area | Phyla | Languages |
|---|---|---|
| Africa | 5 | 13 |
| Eurasia | 9 | 13 |
| Papunesia | 2 | 3 |
| Australia | 2 | 2 |
| North America | 6 | 7 |
| South America | 5 | 5 |
| | 29[a] | 43 |

[a]The actual number of phyla is 27. Indo-European occurs both in Africa, via Afrikaans, and obviously, in Eurasia. Similarly, Afro-Asiatic is found both in Africa, via Beja, Kambaata and Siwi, and in Eurasia, via Hebrew.

representation of language diversity, encouraging the study of smaller and endangered languages, specifically with regard to negation, quality of scholarship, and the availability of authors – a balanced representation of the macro-areas has not been achieved as is evident from Table 1.

As indicated in Table 1, there are five phyla represented in the African macro-area. Four of them are native to Africa: Atlantic-Congo and Afro-Asiatic cover large parts of the continent while Nilotic and Mande are more localized. Indo-European as a colonial newcomer is represented as well. As is well known, Atlantic-Congo is a major language stock that branches out into numerous and very diverse subgroups. Bantu is among the largest subfamilies and for this reason it is justified that it is represented here by several languages that also reflect the west-east divide in the family. The Atlantic-Congo phylum is further represented by other subgroups in Central and West Africa which contribute to the more adequate representation of this wide-spread phylum. As shown in Table 1, four out of five possible subfamilies of the Afro-Asiatic phylum are included. Smaller families in both East and West Africa are also covered. Given the overall number of languages included in this work, we consider the African macro-area relatively well represented.

A similar observation can be made about Eurasia. In the context of this work, its diversity is presented by including both large stocks such as Indo-European, Uralic and Sino-Tibetan but also by featuring some smaller families and isolate language clusters. They include Nakh-Daghestanian, Mongolic-Khitan

Table 2: Detailed listing of the languages in volumes I and II

| Phylum | Subgrouping(s) | **Language** | Glottocode | Author(s) |
|---|---|---|---|---|
| **Africa** | | | | |
| Afro-Asiatic | Cushitic, Beja* | **Beja** | beja1238 | M. Vanhove |
| | Cushitic, East Cushitic* | **Kambaata** | kamb1316 | Y. Treis |
| | Berber | **Siwi** | siwi1239 | V. Schiattarella |
| Nilotic | Eastern Nilotic | **Lopit** | lopi1242 | J. Moodie |
| Atlantic-Congo | Narrow Bantu* | **Gyeli** | gyel1242 | N. Grimm |
| | | **Ngoreme** | ngur1263 | A. Laine, R. Bernander, H. Gibson |
| | | **Ruuli** | ruul1235 | E. Ruppert, S. Namyalo, A. Witzlack-Makarevich |
| | | **Cuwabo** | chuw1238 | R. Guérois |
| | North-Volta-Congo, Kam | **Kam** | kamm1249 | J. Lesage |
| | North-Volta-Congo, Gbaya-Manza-Ngbaka | Northwest Gbaya | nort2775 | P. Roulon-Doko |
| | Central Atlantic | **Mankanya** | mank1251 | A. Montébran |
| Mande | Southeastern Mande* | **Mano** | mann1248 | M. Khachaturyan |
| Indo-European | Germanic | **Afrikaans** | afri1274 | D. Van Olmen, A. Breed, E. Kotzé |
| **Eurasia** | | | | |
| Sign Language | Dutch-Belgian Sign | **Sign Language of the Netherlands** | dutc1253 | U. Klomp, M. Oomen, R. Pfau |
| Indo-European | Slavic | **Bulgarian** | bulg1262 | L. Veselinova |
| | Iranian | **Pashto** | pash1269 | H. Liljegren, M. K. Khan |
| Afro-Asiatic | Semitic | **Modern Hebrew** | hebr1245 | O. Amiraz |
| Uralic | Saami | **Lule Saami** | lule1254 | J. Ylikoski, O. Kejonen |
| | Finnic | **Veps** | veps1250 | R. Grünthal |
| Nakh-Dagestanian | Avar-Andic-Tsezic* | **Andi** | andi1255 | T. Maisak |
| | Nakh | Tsova Tush | bats1242 | F. Anker |
| Mongol-Khitan | Eastern Mongolic | **Khalkha Mongolian** | halh1238 | B. Brosig |
| Sino-Tibetan | Kuki-Chin-Naga* | **Amri Karbi** | amri1238 | N. Philippova |
| | Gyalrongic [...] Horpa | **Geshiza** | gesh1238 | S. Honkasalo |
| Austroasiatic | Khasi-Palaung* | **Rumai Palaung** | ruma1248 | R. Weymuth |
| Nivkh | Nivkh | **Nivkh** | nivk1234 | E. Gruzdeva, M. Fedotov |

Table 3: Detailed listing of the languages in volume III

| Phylum | Subgrouping(s) | Language | Glottocode | Author(s) |
|---|---|---|---|---|
| **Papunesia** | | | | |
| Austronesian | Malayo-Polynesian | Sundanese | sund1252 | M. Butters |
| | Oceanic [...] Northern Vanuatu | Dorig | weta1242 | A. François |
| West Bomberai* | Kalamang | Kalamang | kara1499 | E. Visser |
| **Australia** | | | | |
| Southern Daly | Murrinh Patha | Murrinhpatha | murr1258 | R. Nordlinger |
| Worrorran | Ngarinyin | Ngarinyin | ngar1284 | S. Spronck |
| **North America** | | | | |
| Siouan | Mississipi Valley | Nakoda | assi1247 | V. Collette |
| Iroquoian | Northern Iroquoian | Mohawk | moha1258 | M. Mithun |
| | Northern Iroquoian | Oneida | onei1249 | J. P. Koenig, K. Michelson |
| Pomoan | Southern Pomoan-Kashaya | Kashaya | kash1280 | B. Olsson |
| Muskogean | Alabaman-Koasati | Koasati | koas1236 | J. B. Martin |
| Otomanguean | Zapotec | Teotitlán del Valle Zapotec | teot1238 | A. Gutiérrez |
| Mixe-Zoque | Mixe | Chuxnabán Mixe | quet1239 | C. Dagostino |
| **South America** | | | | |
| Chibchan | Arhuacic | Kogi | cogu1240 | D. Knuchel |
| Arawakan | Japura-Columbia | Yukuna | yucu1253 | M. Lemus Serrano, F. Rose |
| Chicham | Aguaruna | Aguaruna | agua1253 | S. Overall |
| Nuclear-Macro-Je | Je | Panará | pana1307 | B. Bardagil |
| Araucanian* | Mapundungun | Mapudungun | mapu1245 | F. Zúñiga |

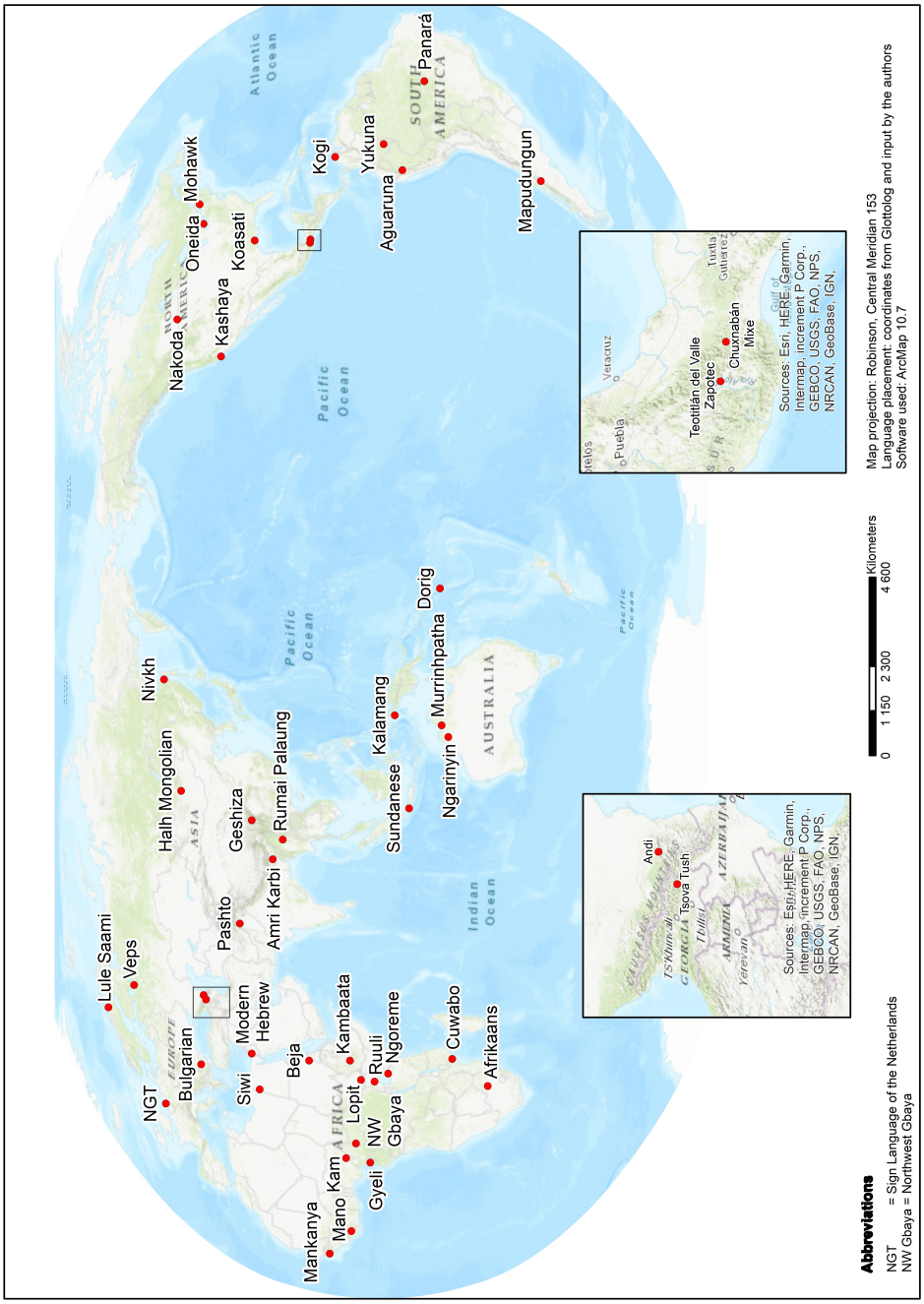


Figure 1: Geographic distribution of the languages covered in these volumes

and Nivkh, spread from the Caucasus to the Russian Far East. The Nakh-Daghestanian family is represented by two languages, which belong to two distinct branches of the family and are also geographically separated by the Caucasian Mountains: Andi (Avar-Andic-Tsezic) spoken in the Botlikhsky District of the Republic of Daghestan, in the northern part of the Caucasian mountains, and Tsova Tush, a Nakh language, spoken in a village in Eastern Georgia, in the southern part of the Caucasian mountain chain. The inclusion of Nivkh adds to the genealogical and geographic coverage of the volumes, and it also adds depth in that both of its main varieties are described.

As stated above, the genealogical diversity of Papunesia is not well covered in this work. However, it should be noted that the two phyla from this area are of very distinct character. One is Austronesian, which is geographically the most wide-spread family in the world. It is represented by two languages which are far apart both geographically and genealogically within the phylum: Sundanese, spoken primarily in West Java and Banten, Western Indonesia, and Dorig, an Oceanic language from the Torres Banks linkage, Northern Vanuatu. The other family from Papunesia is Greater West Bomberai[4] located in East Timor and West Papua. It is represented by Kalamang, considered to form a branch on its own within this family. This language is spoken on the biggest of the three Karas Islands, West Papua province, Eastern Indonesia.

The Australian languages featured in the work are Murrinhpatha (Southern Daly) and Ngarinyin (Worrorran). They are both spoken in the Northern Territory, linguistically the most diverse region of the continent. As indicated above, Murrinhpatha and Ngarinyin belong to distinct families with very different morpho-syntactic characteristics; the locations where they are still used are far apart. We have to acknowledge that the coverage of Australia would have been more adequate if at least one Pama-Nyungan language were included in the work. We hope that this can be picked up and remedied in future publications.

North America is represented by six different phyla spread across the continent, thus it can be considered relatively well represented in this work. The Iroquoian languages Oneida and Mohawk included here represent one and the same subgroup, Northern Iroquoian. While this contradicts the goal of including as diverse languages as possible, having the possibility to contrast two very closely related languages is usually very instructive for building up informed and comprehensive typologies.

As is well known, in South America we observe few very large phyla and a huge number of smaller families and isolates. Languages from three of its geographically and genealogically diverse families are represented here: Yukuna

[4]West Bomberai in Glottolog.

(Arawakan), Panará (Nuclear Macro-Je) and Kogi (Chibchan). In addition, we have also included Aguaruna, a language from a tightly knit family, Chicham (formerly known as Jivaroan), spoken in the south of Ecuador, and Mapundungun, a language isolate[5] of southern Chile. While the inclusion of more smaller families from South America would have been desirable to achieve a better genealogical representation, it has to be pointed out that the languages included here are geographically wide apart (see Figure 1) and spread across the entire continent. In this sense, the coverage of South America is acceptable.

As stated in the beginning of this section, the selection of languages presented here does not constitute a properly stratified sample. Still, we hope that the studies in this work provide a diverse enough picture of the complexities of negation as manifested in natural languages. We also hope that they will inspire future studies and new perspectives on this fascinating domain that has been and continues to be the focus of many works, in linguistics and beyond.

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[5] Araucanian in Glottolog.

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